

Poles/Zeros & Stability

Control Engineering

Course Schedule

1. Systems
2. Continuous-time Controllers
3. Laplace Domain
4. Poles/Zeros & Stability
5. Controller Design
6. Discrete-time Controllers
7. State Space Representation
8. Advanced Control Methods

Poles/Zeros & Stability

- Effect on transient response
- Resonance
- Frequency-domain stability analysis

Poles and Zeros

$$G(s) = \frac{b_m \prod_{i=1}^m (s - s_{0i})}{a_n \prod_{i=1}^n (s - s_{pi})}$$

Poles: roots of denominator s_p

Zeros: roots of numerator s_0

Determine system behavior

Interpretation of Poles

System's natural response:

sum of terms like $e^{s_p t}$ (one term for each pole $s_p = \sigma + j\omega$)

Real s_p : purely exponential, no oscillation

Complex s_p : (damped) oscillation

- Single real pole: PT1
- Two real poles: aperiodic PT2 (sum of two exponential terms)
- Conjugate pole pair: oscillating PT2

Pole Location

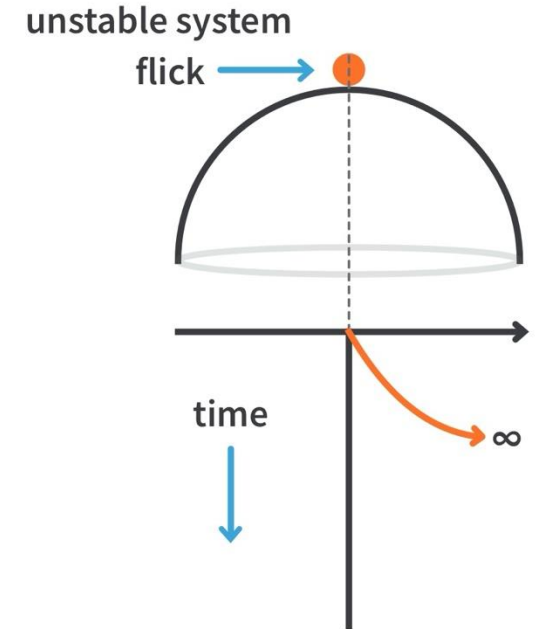
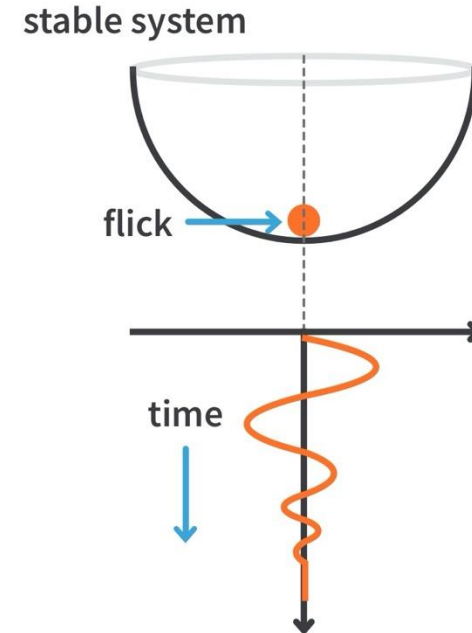
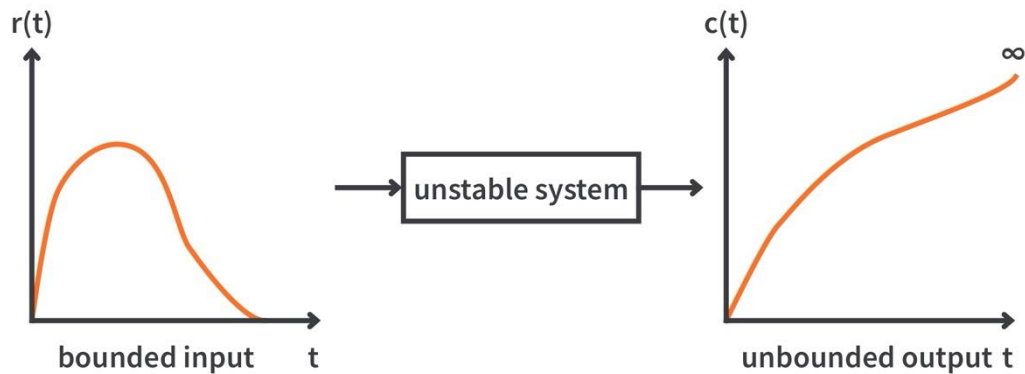
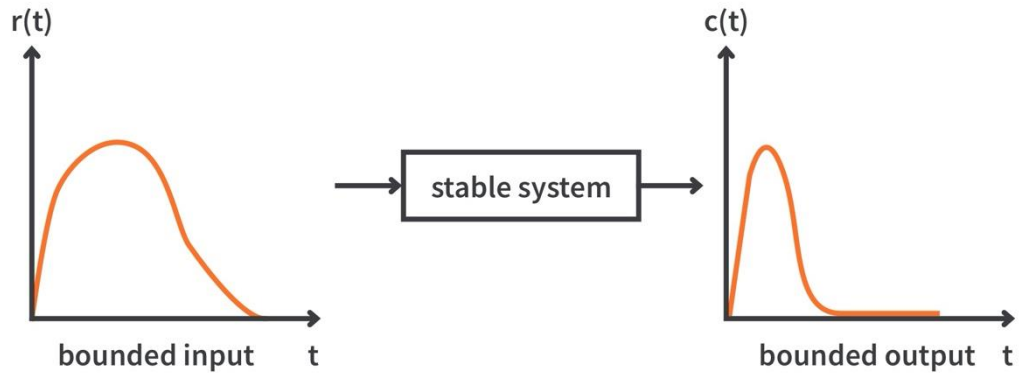
Pole real part determines decay/growth rate

- $\text{Re}(s_p) < 0$, i.e., left half-plane (LHP): exponential decay $\rightarrow$ stable
- $\text{Re}(s_p) = 0$, i.e., on imaginary axis: purely oscillatory $\rightarrow$ marginally stable
- $\text{Re}(s_p) > 0$, i.e., right half-plane (RHP): exponential growth $\rightarrow$ unstable

- Far to the left: fast decay $e^{-\sigma t}$
- Closer to the imaginary axis: slower decay

- Overall transient dominated by pole closest to imaginary axis

Bounded Input Bounded Output (BIBO) Stability



Stability of Continuous-Time Systems

- Stable if all poles have negative real part
- Marginally stable if poles on imaginary axis
- Unstable otherwise

Stability checks for a known fixed transfer function of higher order:

- Numerical solver for root finding: easiest and standard practice
- Analytical alternatives without computing any roots, e.g., Hurwitz criterion (using determinants):
 - Are there any RHP poles?
 - Does stability change with a parameter? (root finding would require parameter scan)

Zero Location

Zeros in LHP:

- speed up response (derivative behavior)
- can increase overshoot (caused by complex poles)
- add phase lead (LHP poles have negative phase, so LHP zeros give the smallest possible phase lag → minimum-phase zeros)

Zeros in RHP:

- cause inverse response (initial motion opposite to final steady-state direction)
- add phase lag (→ non-minimum-phase zeros)
- Zeros at the origin introduce differentiating behavior
- Zeros near poles modify or cancel dynamic modes
- An LHP zero close to the imaginary axis or a zero close to a dominant pole (slowest-decaying exponential, i.e., pole with least negative real part) can increase overshoot significantly.

zero at $s = -z$:

$$Y(s) = (s + z) \frac{N_{\text{rest}}(s)}{D(s)} U(s)$$

inverse Laplace transform of $(s + z)U(s)$:

$$\dot{u}(t) + z \cdot u(t)$$

zero at $s = +z$: $\dot{u}(t) - z \cdot u(t)$

$$(s + z) \rightarrow j\omega + \omega_z \rightarrow \varphi = \tan^{-1} \left(\frac{\omega}{\omega_z} \right)$$
$$\omega \rightarrow \infty: \varphi = +90^\circ \text{ (LHP pole: } \varphi = -90^\circ \text{)}$$

Zeros alone do not make a system unstable, only poles in RHP do.

Interpretation of Zeros

Zeros correspond to multiplications with $s \rightarrow$ derivatives of the input

- Describe how the input excites the natural modes (described by the poles)
- Creates impulse-like behavior from step ($1/s$) $\rightarrow$ faster initial rise
- One can cancel a pole with a zero $\rightarrow$ corresponding exponential term of the pole disappears from the forced response
- Amplification of higher frequencies ($\frac{d}{dt} \sin \omega t = \omega \cdot \cos \omega t$)

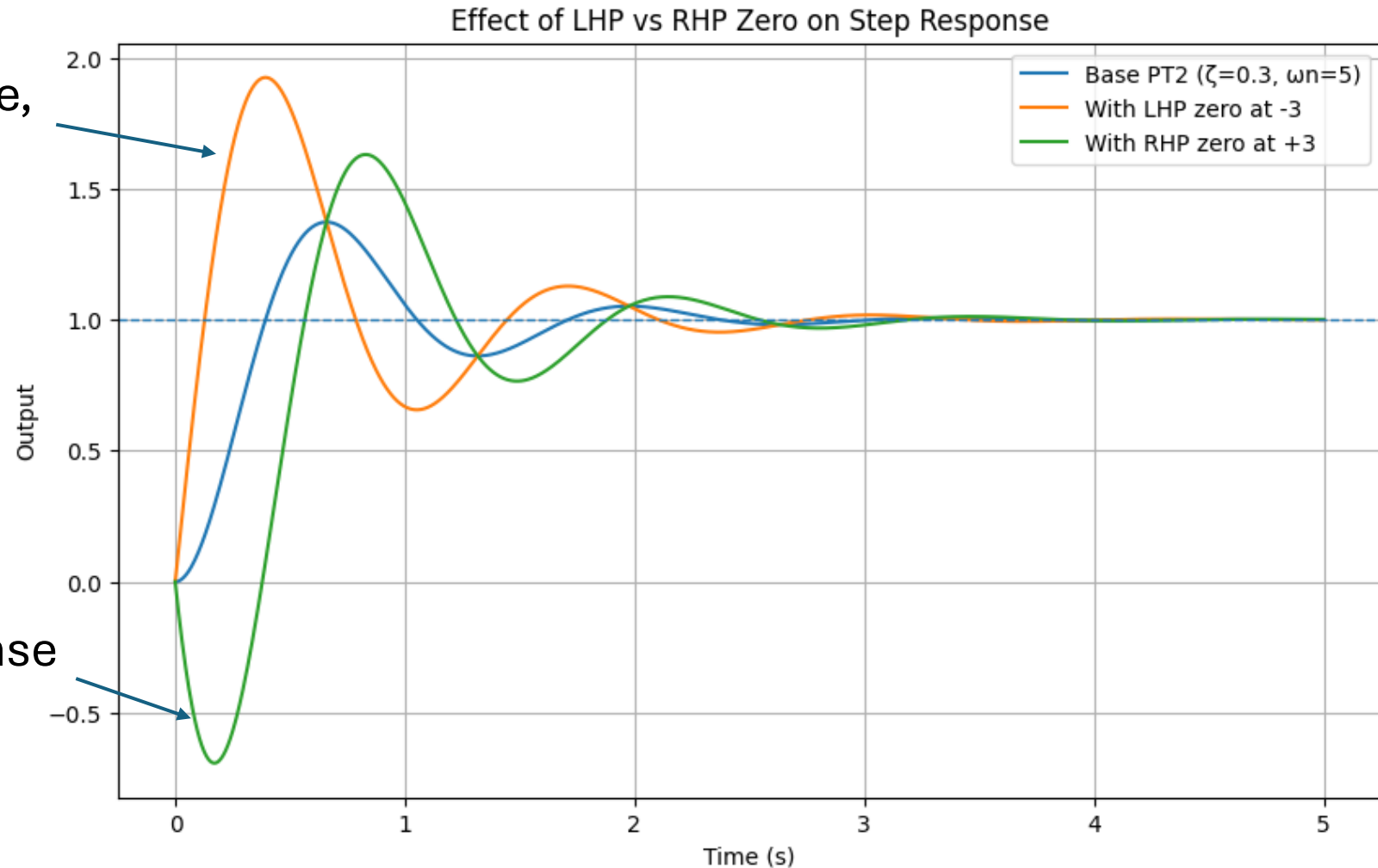
Frequency-selective property: system blocks steady-state sinusoidal response of complex frequency of a zero (despite nonzero input)

More zeros mean a stronger shaping of the input response and an increase of high-frequency gain.

Example: PT2 with LHP and RHP Zero

LHP zero: faster response,
increased overshoot

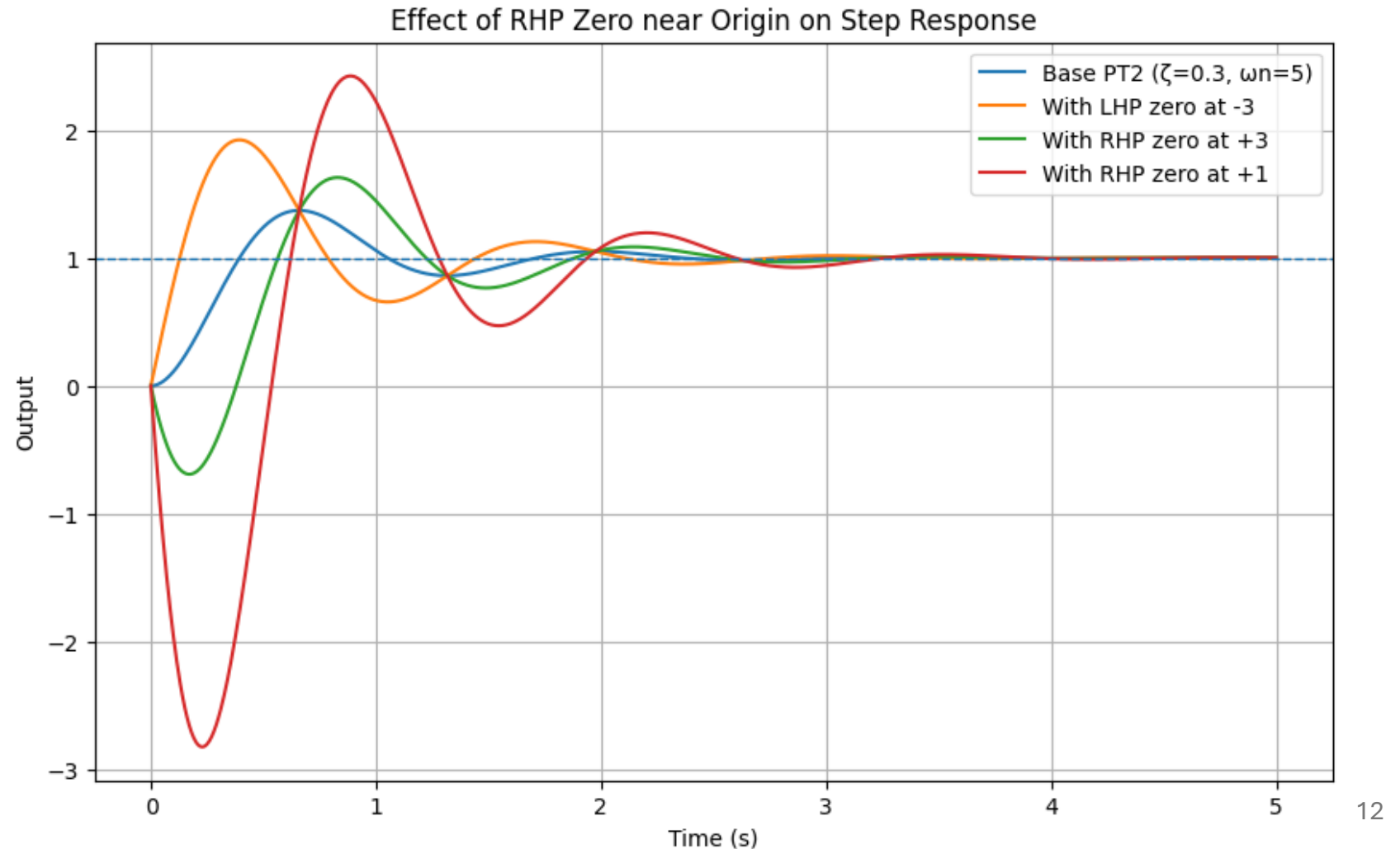
RHP zero: inverse response
(initial dip)



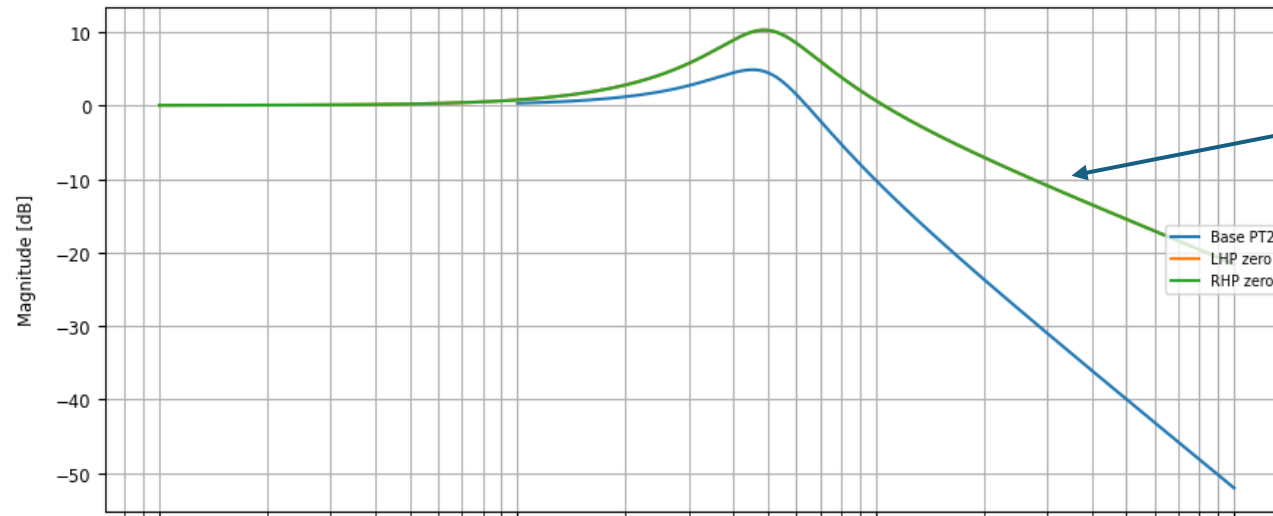
Example: PT2 with LHP and RHP Zero

RHP zero closer to origin:

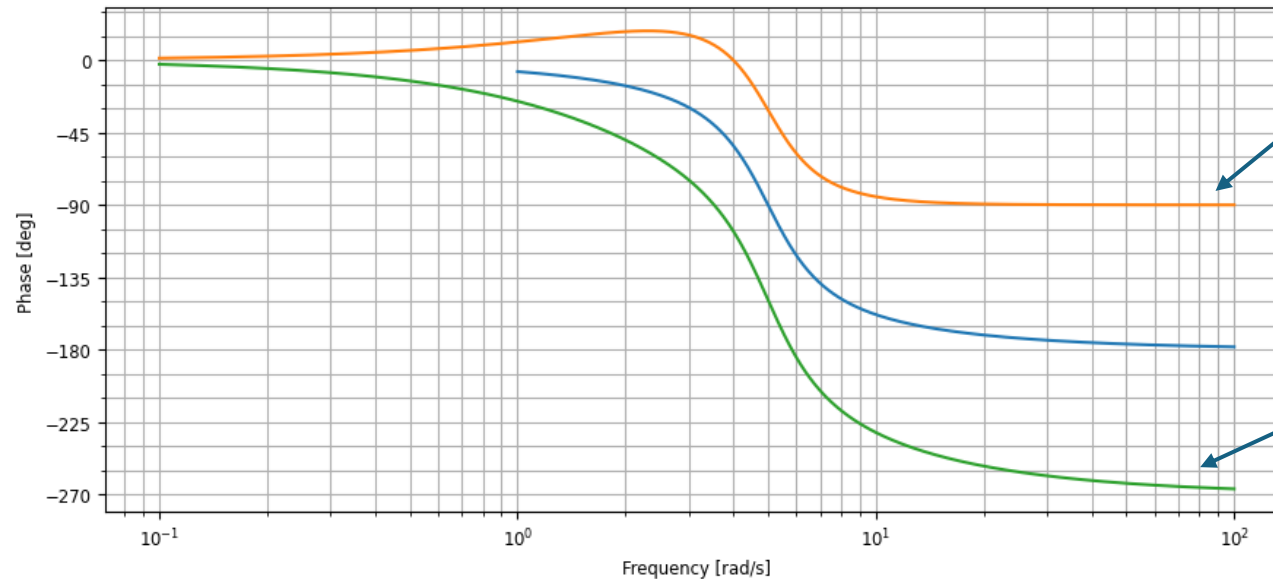
- stronger dip
- higher overshoot
- more sluggish



Example: PT2 with LHP and RHP Zero



Zeros increase high-frequency slope in the same way



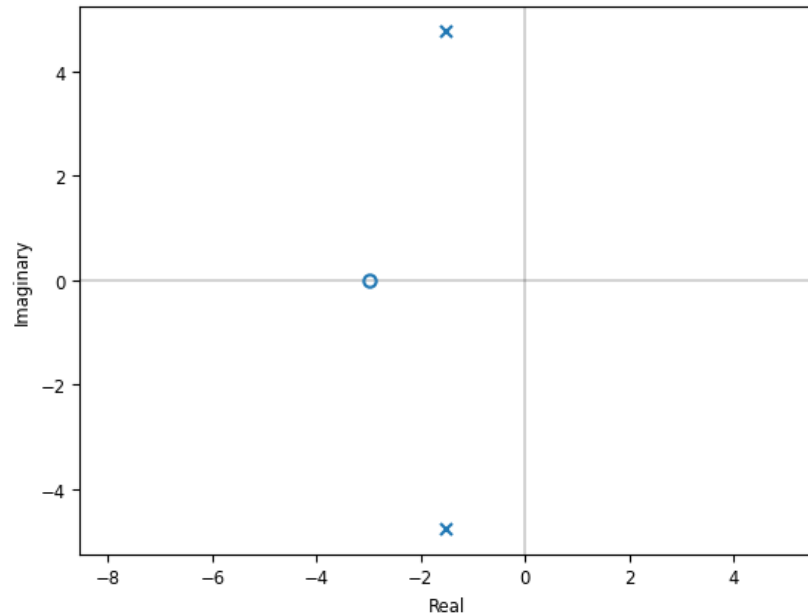
LHP zero: phase lead $+90^\circ$

RHP zero: phase lag -90°

Pole-Zero Diagrams

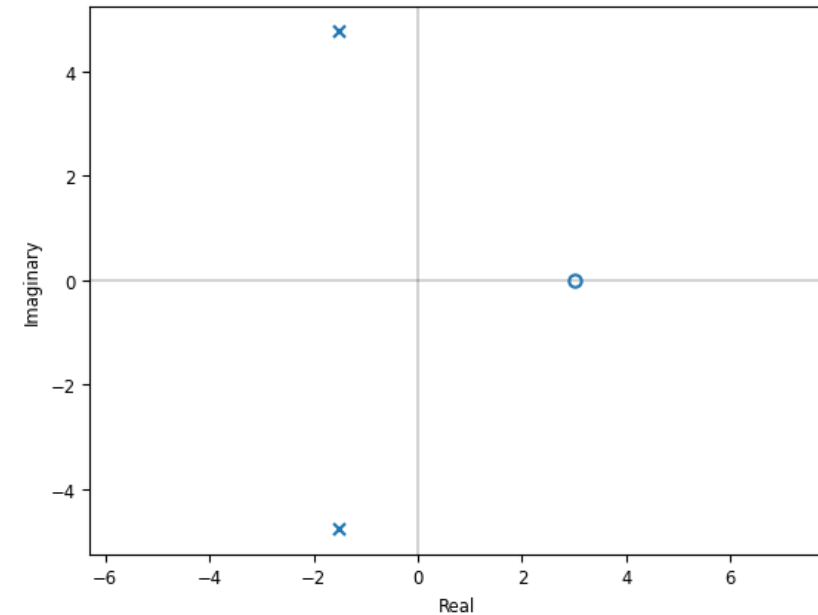
- Graphical representation in complex plane
- Stability visible at a glance
- Often calculated numerically

Pole-Zero Map with LHP Zero



Example from last slides:
both systems stable
(poles in LHP)

Pole-Zero Map with RHP Zero



Resonance

Large response at certain frequencies (if the system's energy storage allows buildup)

→ peaks in frequency response (Bode magnitude, sinusoidal response)

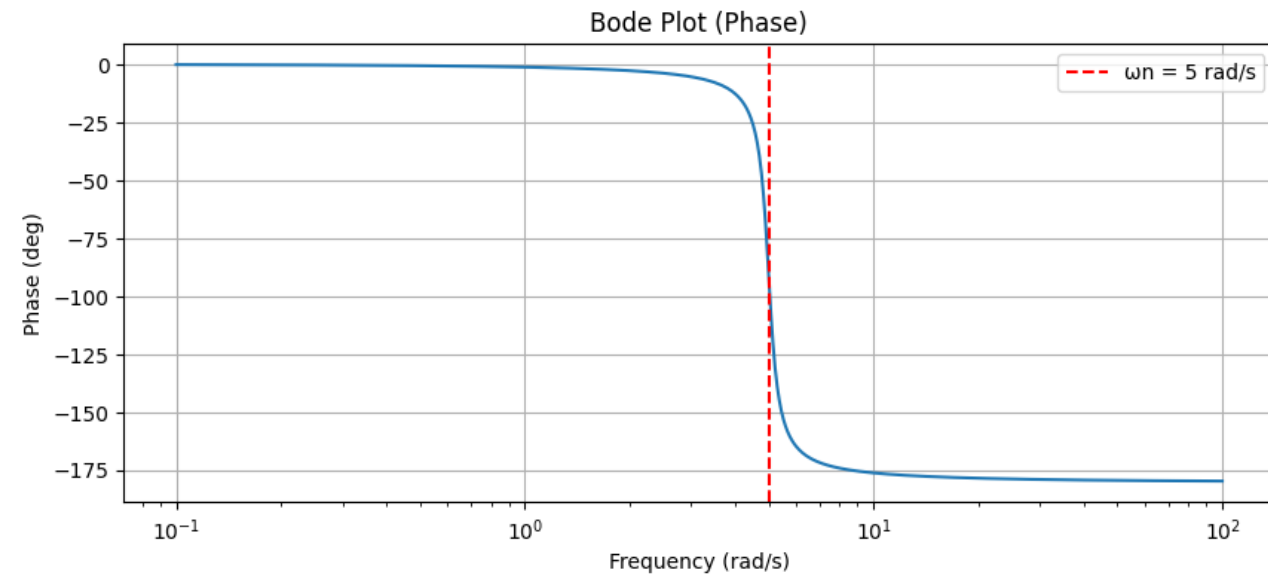
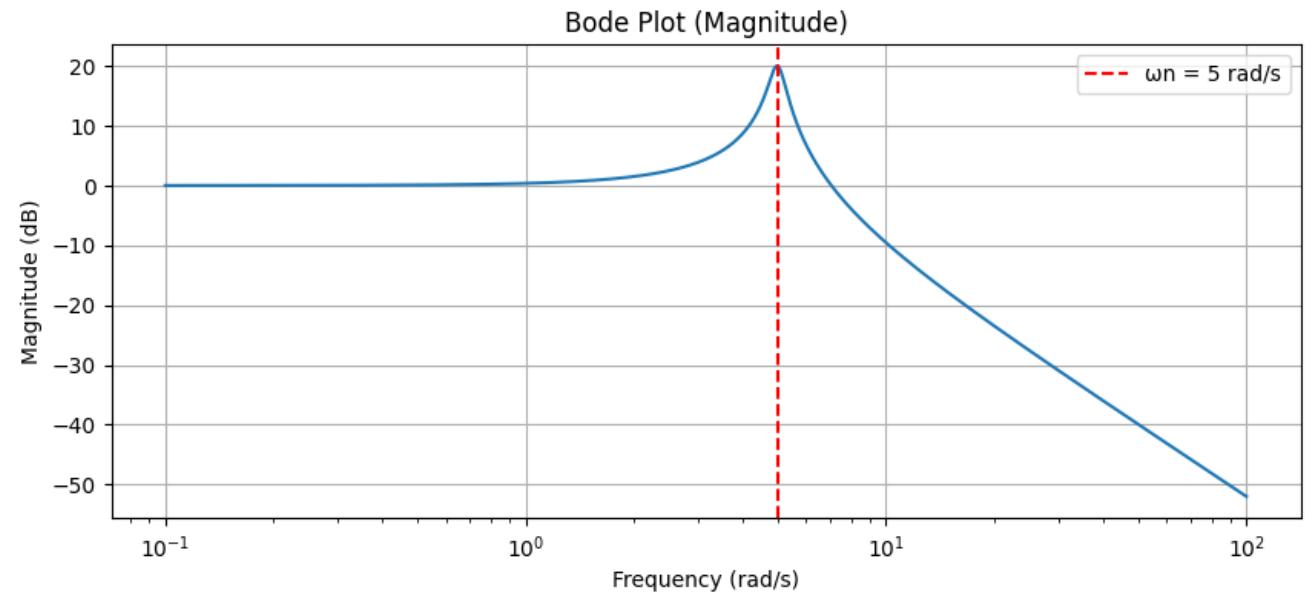
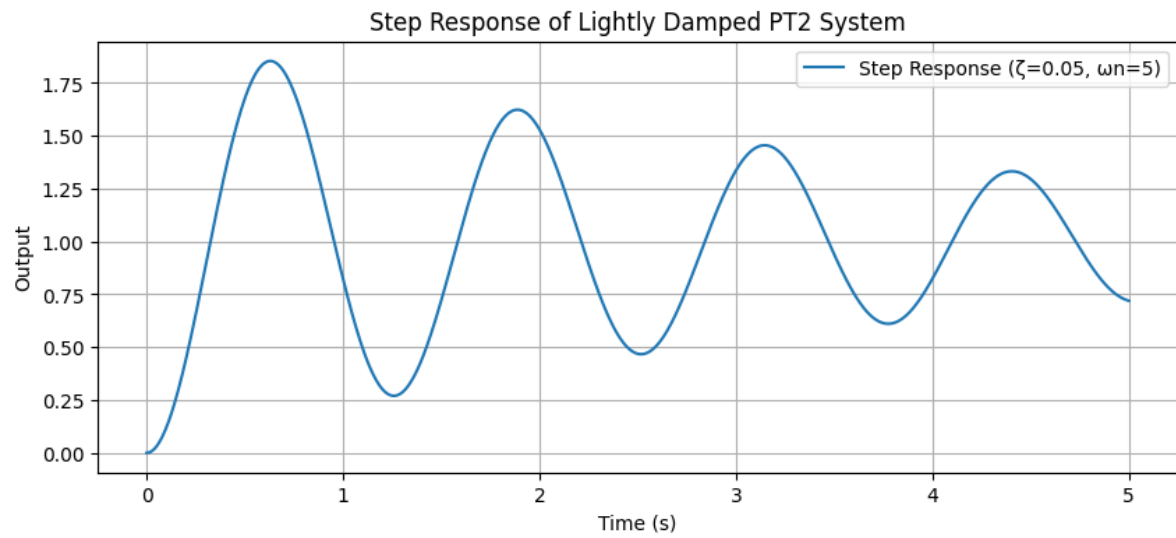
Due to lightly damped complex poles (natural modes)

Resonant frequency near imaginary part of the pole

For second-order system: $\omega_r = \omega_n \sqrt{1 - 2\zeta^2}$ (for small ζ)

Mechanical systems often have very small damping → resonances dominate behavior

→ Controllers must avoid exciting lightly damped poles



Frequency-Domain Stability

Stability inferred from frequency response, i.e., examination of $G(j\omega)$

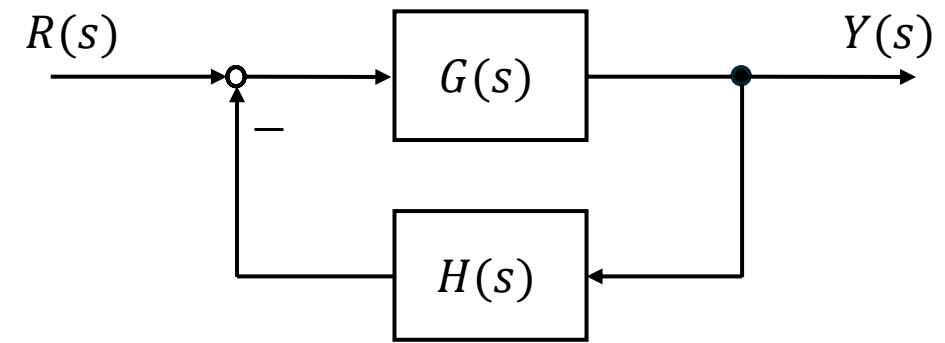
- Purely experimental approach, no mathematical model needed, no explicit pole calculation
- Graphical instead of numerical methods: Nyquist curve, Bode plots

So far: open-loop analysis via Bode plots

Now consider closed-loop stability (feedback systems):

Given an open-loop transfer function, is the closed loop stable?

Closed-Loop Stability



Given an open-loop transfer function $G(s)$, the closed-loop transfer function for negative feedback (with feedback path $H(s)$) reads:

$$T(s) = \frac{G(s)}{1+G(s)H(s)} = \frac{G(s)}{1+L(s)}$$

forward path

loop gain

Typically, $H(s) = 1$ and a controller $C(s)$ is included in the forward path:
 $L(s) = C(s) \cdot G(s)$

→ For closed-loop poles: $L(s) = -1$
Unstable if any solution for s lies in RHP

Nyquist Stability Criterion

Consider Nyquist curve for $L(j\omega)$

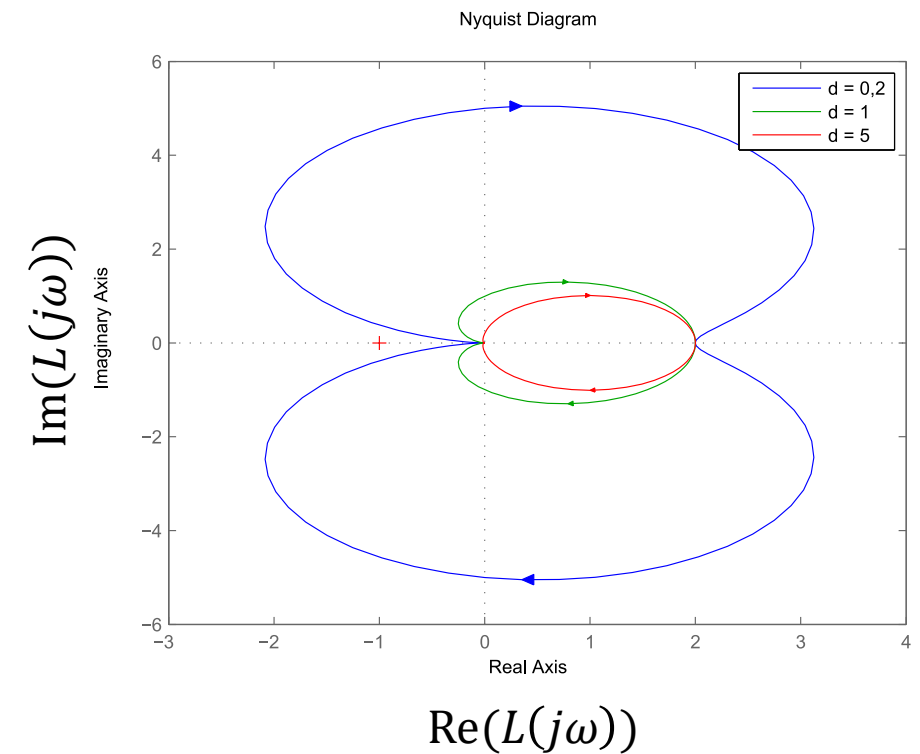
→ evaluation along the imaginary axis of s
(boundary of RHP)

Critical point $-1 + j0$: closed-loop pole

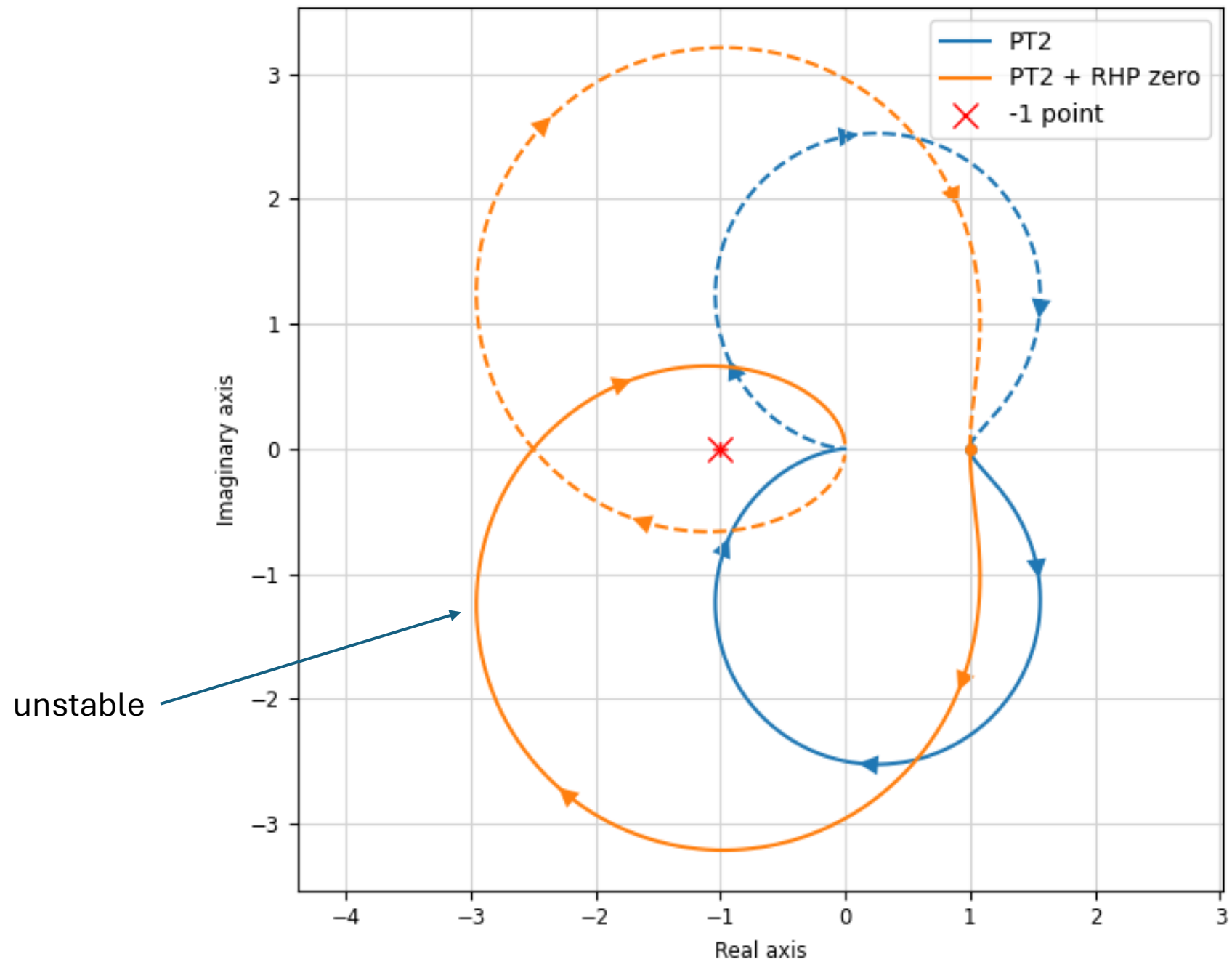
If curve encircles critical point, $L(s) = -1$ has solutions in RHP → closed loop unstable

(Encirclement is a topological signature of a root inside. It considers both positive-frequency and negative-frequency branches: $\omega: -\infty \rightarrow +\infty$)

Stable PT2 system:



Nyquist Plot (PT2 + RHP zero)



Nyquist Formula

Number of encirclements $\rightarrow$ how many closed-loop poles in RHP

- P = number of RHP poles of $L(s)$
- Z = number of closed-loop poles in RHP ($L(s) = -1$)
- N = number of encirclements of -1 by the Nyquist plot of $L(s)$, where the sign reflects the encirclement direction

$$Z = N + P$$

$\rightarrow$ An unstable plant (e.g., $P = 1$) can be stabilized by feedback (e.g., $N = -1$).

Gain and Phase Margins

Idea: **measure** distance to instability (of closed-loop system) from Bode plots
→ practical robustness indicators

Instability: $L(j\omega) = -1$

In polar form: $|L(j\omega)| = 1$, $\angle L(j\omega) = -180^\circ$

- If magnitude is less than 1 at phase $-180^\circ \rightarrow$ stable
- If magnitude is greater than 1 at phase $-180^\circ \rightarrow$ unstable

Margins measure distance from that dangerous condition

- Gain margin: how much the loop gain can be increased before instability
- Phase margin: how much more phase lag can be tolerated before instability

Crossover Frequencies

Phase crossover frequency:

$$\angle L(j\omega_{pc}) = -180^\circ$$

Gain margin (unstable when <0):

$$GM = \frac{1}{|L(j\omega_{pc})|}$$

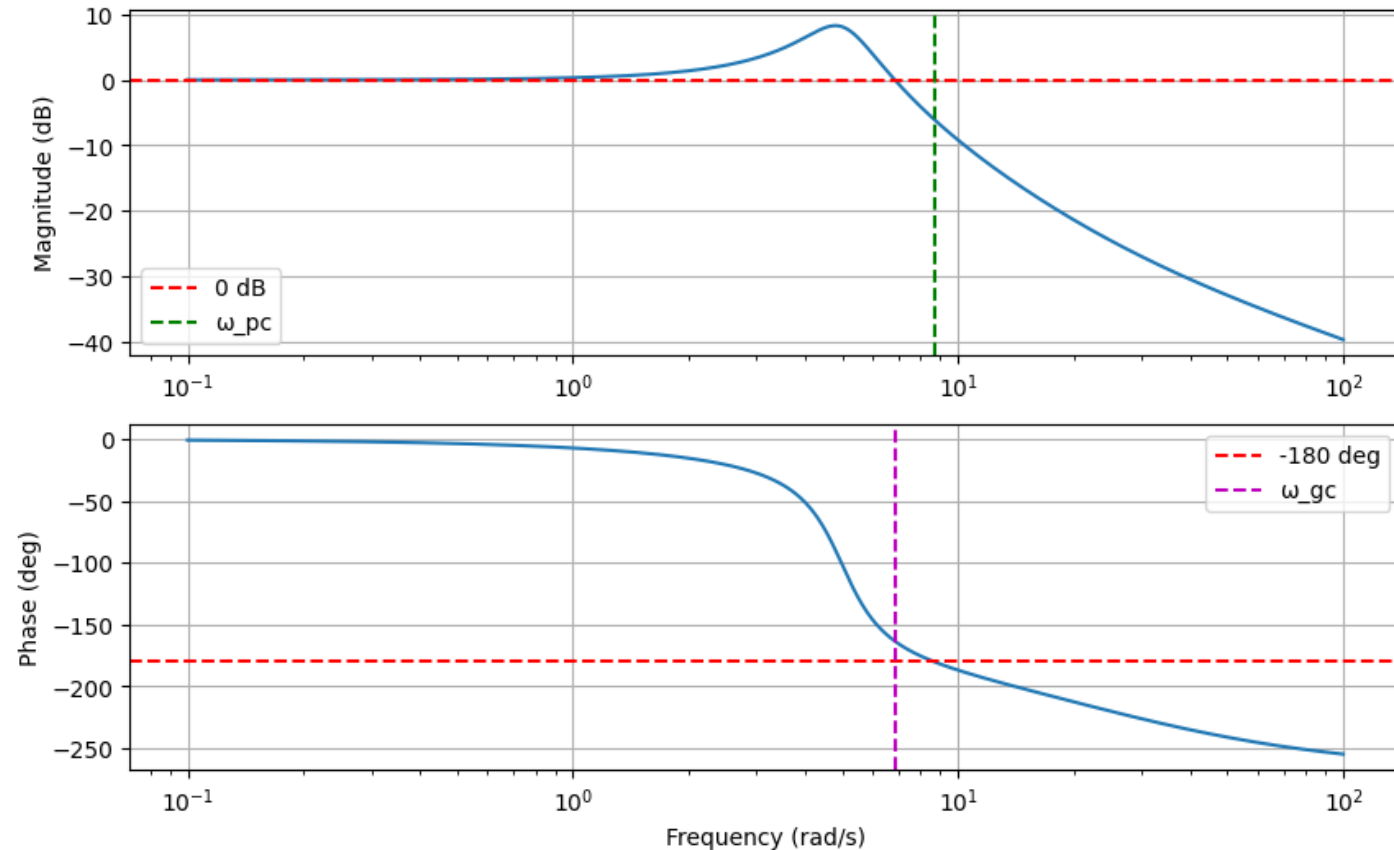
Gain crossover frequency:

$$|L(j\omega_{gc})| = 1$$

Phase margin (unstable when <0):

$$PM = 180^\circ + \angle L(j\omega_{gc})$$

just barely stable:



unstable:

